# CHAPTER IV

# IN DEFENCE OF ARTHĀPATTI AS AN INDEPENDENT PRAMĀNA

As has been explained in the previous chapter, the Nyāya, the Vaiśeṣika and the Sāṁkhya refuse to accept Arthāpatti as a distinct way of knowing simply because they hold it reducible to 'Anumāna'. It is clear Nyāya champions this group. As we have mentioned earlier, among the schools of Indian philosophy, it is the Mīmāṁsa and the Advaita Vedānta which alone recognise Arthāpatti as a separate or independent source of cognition. Kumārila Bhaṭṭa leads this group, as Jayanta champions the opposite one. The basic argument put forth by the Mīmāṁsakas regarding the distinct character of Arthāpatti is that all the cases of Arthāpatti have for their object. Transcendental powers which cannot be known through any other pramāṇa. This is the touchstone on which the Mīmāṁsakās have tested the distinctness of Arthāpatti from other pramāṇas. Since Arthāpatti is primarily concerned with the formulation of hypothesis, and since hypothesis necessarily related to something. So far unperceived, Arthāpatti needs to be regarded as a source of parokṣa or non-perceptual and not aparokṣa or perceptual cognition. Hence the question of Arthāpatti's reducibility to perception does not arise, as also its reducibility to either Śabda or Upamāna, in

virtue of their being sources of non-perceptual cognition, is simply out of the question. The only source of non-perceptual cognition, its reducibility to many be defended by measure of conviction, should be none other than Anumāna or inference.

But, as we have seen earlier, both Prabhākara and Kumārila have argued the distinctiveness of presumption from inference in their respective ways. The Vedānta also does the same in the following manner. This school of philosophy, be it noted in the beginning, holds that in the case of inference strictly so called, the universal major premise must be based on positive concomitance (anvayavyāpti), and that the inference in which negative concomitance (vyatireka vyāpti) constitutes the basis of its universal major premise is really no inference as such, but is another name for presumption (The foremost among the schools of Indian philosophy which admit the possibility of inference with a universal major premise based on negative concomitance is the Nyāya). The typical example of such inference as given by this school of philosophy is:

Earth is distinct from other elements;
Because it is endowed with smell as its attribute and because whatever is not of this attribution, is not of this description.

The Advaita Vedānta's contention in this connection is, however, that he who draws this conclusion is definitely aware that he is not inferring anything, but is only supposing something. Judged in this light, presumption, as the Vedānta argues, is distinct from inference for the simple reason that a universal major premise based on positive concomitance is not available in its case, the proposition, for example, "wherever there is stoutness (pīnatvaṁ) there is the condition of eating at night (rātribhojanaṁ)" being contrary to fact. But this really brings to light the crux of the whole situation by leaving behind the demand for a fresh enquiry into the possibility of inference with a universal major premise based on negative concomitance (vyatirekavyāpti). Hence arises the necessity for the consideration of the attempts made by the Vaiśeṣika, the Nyāya and the Sāṁkhya to show that presumption, in the final analysis, is a form of inference.

In the following pages of the present chapter an earnest attempt is made to expound the respective arguments of the two branches of Pūrva Mimāṁsa headed by Kumārila Bhāṭṭa and Prabhākara and the Advaita Vedānta in defence of the distinct and independent character of Arthāpatti consistent with their respective conceptions of what constitutes the real nature of Arthāpatti, a detailed explanation of which formed the content of our second chapter.

## A. THE CONTENTION OF THE PRABHĀKARAS IN DEFENCE OF ARTHĀPATTI

The followers of the Prabhākara school of Pūrva Mīmāṁsa adopt a line of argument to distinguish between inference and presumption consistent with their conception of Arthāpatti as involving an element of doubt and the removal of which in their view, is the unique function of the pramāṇa under consideration.

The principal point on which this differs from inference is that, in the case of the latter, no kind of 'doubt' enters as a necessary factor, while in presumption it is necessary that there should be a doubt as to the validity of the two irreconcilable facts of perception.[1] Thus the source of presumption lies in the perceived thing, which, in the absence of something else, remains inconsistent, and hence doubtful, and for the sake of removing this element of doubt with regard to itself leads to the presumption of that other thing. In the case of inference, on the other hand, the probans - which forms the real source - is not to be set with any doubt. In fact no inference from it would be possible if its validity were at all uncertain. Thus in the case of presumption, the source or origin is doubtful: while in that of inference, it must be absolutely free from all invalidating circumstances.

The Prabhākaras hold that in case of inference the probans (hetu) is not dependable if the probandam (sādhya) does not exists on the locus of the probans (paksha ) in question. The adjectival phrase 'otherwise not logically valid' qualifies a probans in the case of inference. For example, smoke cannot logically exist on the subject of inference if fire does not exist there. But in the case of presumption the reverse is the order subsisting between the implier and the implied. The implied object cannot be proved if the implier does not exist.[2] The Prabhākara explains this with a familiar example. The perceived non-existence in the house leads to presumption of his external non-existence, only when it has thrown itself, and also the other known fact of the man's being into uncertainty.[3] The Prabhākara also explains the extract of Śabara's commentary to fit it in with this new hypothesis. The object which is known to us either through the verbal testimony or through the other means of knowledge causes us to postulate other objects. As such an object is the only source of postulation, so in the absence of it such a postulation becomes impossible. Again, if we have no opportunity of postulating an object than the object which is postulated cannot appear on the scene. Presumption reveals only an object which is assumed. Hence, presumption is not inference.

On Prabhākara's view, the processes of presumption is as follows:

1. The perception of the fact that the man is not in the house;
2. Till it is known that the man is outside, it is a matter of doubt whether he lives or not;
3. It is then a question of the man living outside. So what is to be determined and what is unintelligible is the man's existence outside. This explained of his existence outside. This is the function of Arthāpatti.[4]

The Prabhākara view of presumption is not accepted by the Bhaṭṭa who argues that in the case of the example cited, if the fact of the man being alive was at all doubtful, it could not afford a sound basis for the requisite presumption, it is only when the fact of his being alive is known for certain, that it can warrant the presumption of the man having gone out. Then again, this doubt, if - there any, as to whether the man is alive or not, would be set aside, not by the cognition of his being outside, but only by the certainty of his being alive.[5]

The Naiyāyikas contend that if Arthāpatti is the presumption of something that will account for what is otherwise unaccountable, then it is no other than inference;

even there as we cannot account for smoke (in the stock example) except by postulating (the presence of fire) fire is presumed from (the appearance of) smoke.

Prabhākara agrees and opines that would be so (i.e. a case of inference) if that which is unaccountable is the gamaka or logical means. However, what is unaccountable that itself is gamya or the logical end.

The Naiyāyikas opined that there is nothing wrong. But the fact is otherwise. It is not by perceiving the upapādaka that the apprehension of what was inexplicable arises. If it did the presumption of Śimśpatva would arise on the perception of vṛkṣatva, (treeness) because śimśa-patva cannot be established otherwise than by its possession of the characteristics of a tree (vṛkṣatva). Hence what is unaccountable alone is gamaka and it is not upapā-daka that is gamaka (as Naiyāyika would have it).

Prabhākara points out that he never meant that unaccountability is occasioned by avinābhāva (constant association). For him it arises because of doubt. When we have generally come to associate residence in the house with a man's being alive, he begins to doubt whether that man is alive on perceiving his absence from the house and the doubt is resolved only by postulating his stay outside. Hence since uncertainty as to his being alive

exists before his stay elsewhere is presumed, it cannot be the linga. The mere absence from the house unassociated with the fact of being alive leading as it may to the conclusion that the man is dead is a case of anaikāntika fallacy and as such is incapable of pointing to the conclusion "that he is out". Hence inference being out of the question this (Arthāpatti) is a distinct means of valid apprehension. Whereas in inference the gamaka is a well ascertained fact, in Arthāpatti the gamaka is uncertain. This fact has to be admitted on the strength of (our) experience. And here the reason for uncertainty is the discripancy with what has hitherto been known (viz. Devadatta being alive and remaining in the house).

The Naiyāyika objects that what Prabhākaras said does not stand to reason. Merely on the ground of doubt whether (Devadatta) is alive, his stay outside cannot be presumed. How can one who is in doubt whether Devadatta is alive, or dead, suppose that he is somewhere outside? The doubt regarding one's existence or otherwise (Jivanabhāvābhāvaḥ) cannot be dispelled by the presumption of one's being outside. Everywhere it is the removal of the principal cause (of doubt) that dispels it, or by the ratification of one of the two (alternatives that appear in the doubt). It is not merely by the supposition of (Devadatta's) stay outside that the cause (of doubt) is

removed. On the supposition that one who is alive is generally found at home it has been explained here that one's absence from the house is the cause of doubt. But this doubt will not be dissipated by the postulation of his stay outside. On the other hand it (bahirbhāvakalpana) will only confirm the very opposite (viz. absence from the house which is the cause of doubt). Nor is either of the alternative characterising the doubt ratified (by the presumption of stay outside). The doubt indeed here is whether he is alive or dead. And the assumption that he is outside cannot determine either the one or the other (i.e. his being alive or his being dead). Being alive is one thing and being elsewhere is another thing (lit. his different spatial relation). The presumption based on his absence from the house is no adequate proof to establish the fact of (Devadatta's) being alive. It is not relevant to argue thus: because Devadatta is not found in the house, therefore he is alive. On the contrary how could (it may be asked) the fact of his being alive which had been previously ascertained to be a fact but now rendered doubtful by his absence from the house be established from that (absence) only. The cause of doubt cannot be the cause of resolution of that doubt (it cannot be the means of decision or nirnaya). Hence when the fact of his being alive which is doubtful is first established by some other means, (say Śabda) then his stay elsewhere

has to be presumed. Because Devadatta is alive and is not found in the house, therefore certainly he is elsewhere (this is the right presumption). That presumption however is untenable when it is doubtful if he is alive. Because he is not in the house the doubt arises whether he is alive or not; therefore the presumption that he is away from the house is certainly unreasonable. Hence having ascertained the fact that (Devadatta) is alive together with the fact that he is not in the house-such knowledge being pervaded by the apprehension that he is outside, his being outside (sādhya) is postulated; so that this is only Anumāna and not a separate means of valid cognition.

The pūrvapakṣa by supposing that in the beginning of the tenth chapter the transference of all the anga-vākyas expressed (in prakṛti) is meant to cause the conclusion that the transference of the vākyas which are in syntactical unity in the prakṛiti is in the same manner in which they stand related in the prakṛiti (and so pointed out the conflict with the chapters relating to bandha and ūha).

Prabhākara's objection emanates, who in all ellipses supposes that it is the arthā (the sense) and not the word or phrase that is to be supplied.

Let the (incomplete) sentence be completed by supplying the meaning and where is the need for the words being understood?

Not only in atideśa but everywhere adhyāhāra means for him that of the idea and not of the word; e.g. Kumārila says.

' but for Prabhākara apurvajñana is enough and here is no need for the word apūrva to be understood.

What was again said that even here the sublation is only of the particular place doubted, not of the valid cognition of his being alive, here we say:

If Devadatta being alive is known through inference, his relation to a particular place too is to be known, for the sake of his existence.

Here, if he is related merely to space in general, then on account of his relation to spatiality, this person too would become space.

Therefore what is known is his being alive related to space in general without its particularity being defined, in the form 'He is alive somewhere'.

Therefore his being alive can be validly known only in respect of some particular place, though it is doubted, whether "at home" or "outside"

Of these, when one particular is sublated and prior to the apprehension of the other, the valid knowledge of his being alive, having no support, is itself certainly sublated.

As regards the Mīmāṁsaka's contention that the relation of invariable concomitance holding between the 'implicans' and the 'implicate' can in no way be discovered since such a relation is discovered when the objects thus related are within the range of vision.[6] Jayanta holds that such an argument does not appeal to reason. He further points out that the Mīmāṁsakās themselves are not sure of the truth of their argument. A doubt as to whether or not the invariable relation holds between the 'implicans' and the 'implicate' has arisen in their mind but they have not been able to arrive at the definite conclusion that the above relation does not subsist between them. Hence they have put forward another example to prove their thesis, viz., "when a living person is at home he is not out'. But if the Mīmāṁsakās think that it is a better example, they should have given it at the outset.

## B. THE DEFENCE OF ADVAITA VEDĀNTA

Let us begin by observing that Prabhākara's attempt to account for the distinction between presumption and inference with reference to his admission of the presence

of an element of 'doubt' in the former and the absence of it in the latter proves a failure in the light of Kumārila's finding that presumption, as a matter of fact, does not have to bear the burden of any such thing as 'doubt'. Even so, Kumārila is as insistent on the recognition of this distinction as in Prabhākara, and finds the reason for this recognition in his view that presumption differs from inference in that, whereas the former involves the conflict between two known facts, the latter is free from such involvement. But then, any attempt to argue the distinction between the two sources of cognition under consideration, not with reference to their respective peculiarities as ways of cognizing, but with reference to the element or elements supposed to be involved in them, is undoubtedly superficial and cannot really serve the purpose which it is intended to serve. This seems to have been realized by the Advaita vedānta as is evident from the fact that, instead of undertaking the useless task of ascertaining the factors likely to be involved in presumption, it straightaway takes notice of the peculiarity of this way of cognizing and accordingly states that it is none but the act of framing hypothesis with a view to explaining situations which call for explanation.

The Advaita Vedānta, while dismissing the possibility of the interpretation of Arthāpatti as identical with

that kind of Anumāṇa in which the universal concomitance (vyāpti) is based upon positive instances (anvaya dṛiṣṭānta), does not rule out, but, on the contrary, admits the possibility of its being treated as the same as the kind of inference in whose case vyapti jñana is based on negative instance/vyatireki dṛiṣṭānta. That is Arthāpatti is Anumāṇa through a negative concomitance (vyatirekivyāpti), which according to Advaita is no inference at all.[7]

In the syllogism 'Earth is different from the other elements, because it possesses odour, the pervasion is negative, in the form, 'whatever is not different from the other elements has no odour, e.g. fire, air, water, or ether'; it cannot, however, be said 'what ever has odour is different from the other elements'. Since odour exists only in earth and with regard to that, since it is the subject, there is not certainly, but doubt, whether the sādhya (probandum) exists in it or not. And we have said already that in inference our knowledge is based on perversion of co-presence; perversion of co-absence, being merely negative, can give rise to no knowledge except through indicating an unintelligibility that calls for a postulation;[8] earth could not intelligibly possess a quality not present in other elements, without being different from those elements. It is no inference. It is an implication, a hypothesis. For the Advaitin Arthāpatti

accepted as an independent source of knowledge is the supposition of the cause. When well ascertained fact cannot be explained without the presumption of another thing as causing it, then this supposition is called Arthāpatti. The process is inductive. The effect is given, the cause is suggested.

Hence a case of Arthāpatti cannot be treated as an Anumāṇa. According to Advaita Vedānta, 'the knowledge of negative invariable concomitance is not a cause of inferential knowledge.[9] Only affirmative invariable concomitance ( anvaya-vyāpti) can lead to inference. So it accepts only one kind of inference, affirmative (anvayi), but concedes that negative invariable concomitance can lead to inference in a round about way, that is, through affirmative invariable concomitance. For, from the knowledge of negative invariable concomitance by means of postulation (Arthāpatti).[10] From the fact where there is no fire there is no smoke, as in a lake, one can assume that where there is smoke, as in a lake, one can assume that where there is smoke there is fire because the presence of fire in a hill from the sight of smoke there.

In neither of the two cases cited above do we apprehend an affirmative invariable concomitance between the thing perceived and the thing to be inferred, such as between Devadatta's stoutness and eating at night or

between Caitra's being alive and staying outside. So these cannot be included in inference, as the Naiyāyikas hold.

As stated in Vedānta paribhāsa, 'This postulation cannot be included in inference. For, since affirmative invariable concomitance cannot be apprehended here, it cannot be classed under affirmative inference, and we have previously refuted the contention that inference through negative invariable is also an inference. Hence in cases of postulation the apperception is not 'I am inferring it', but, 'I am assuming it from this'.[11]

Rāmakṛṣṇa, the author of the Śikhāmaṇi, however, differs from the other Advaitins who accept only one type of inference, i.e. anvaya based on positive universal concomitance which is known through the method of anvaya or agreement in presence coupled with non-observation of any vyabhicāra or violation. Rāmakṛṣṇa argues that it is not a vyāpti between the hetu and sādhya alone that can be the basis of an inference. Any other vyāpti can also lead to an inference, provided that it does not present any opposition to the universal concomitance between the hetu and the sādhya. It is idle to object, according to Ramakṛṣṇa, that in that case the knowledge of universal concomitance, like "whatever is produced is non-eternal", might also lead to the inference, "the mountain is fiery", as there is no opposition between this universal and the

universal "wherever there is any smoke, there is fire". For we never actually have such an inference in life. The testimony of self-consciousness should be the ultimate judge as to whether any inference actually takes place from a proposition or not.

Ramakṛṣṇa goes further and maintains that by accepting the Nyāya theory of inference based on a negative concomitance. It need not be apprehended that the Advaitin is obliged to abandon his own theory of presumption this is as an independent method of knowledge distinct from inference. The fact that the knowledge obtained through presumption they also be obtained through inference, does not necessarily imply that it is always so known. Here, as elsewhere, the evidence of self-consciousness should decide what actually is the source of particular knowledge. The existence of an object known through perception can also be known through inference. But that neither argues that perception is included in inference, nor shows that everywhere the existence of the object is actually known through inference. It is only self-reflection that can tell us whether in a particular case the object is known perceptually or inferentially. Similarly the distinction between Arthāpatti and Anumāna also is grounded on the testimony of self-consciousness the one cannot, therefore, be reduced to the other.

Another alternative argument in support of inference based on negative concomitance is advanced, by Ramakṛṣṇa. Even granting that it is only a universal negative concomitance between the hetu and the sādhya, that can yield an inference, it may be said that the knowledge of a negative universal concomitance can lead to an affirmative universal concomitance, and through that leads to an inference. Thus the Advaitins can, according to Ramakṛṣṇa accept the Nyāya theory of inference based on negative concomitance quite consistantly with their own theory of presumption. Orthodox commentators of the Vedāntaparibhāṣa urge however, against Ramakṛṣṇa that the evidence of self-consciousness does not prove that we ever infer any conclusion from a vyatireki universal. There is no ground, therefore, for accepting an inference, based on a universal negative concomitance.

Having thus presented the different shades of the Advaitic views on the matter, it is necessary to evaluate these views. Let us first consider the objections of Advaita against the reduction of presumption to inference. The Advaitins in their criticism presuppose that presumption, if it be an inference at all, must be one based on universal negative concomitance, and argue that such an inference is no inference at all, presumption cannot be one such. It is undeniable that the instances of

presumption can be rendered in the negative form. To illustrate, the argument that the man who fasts by day and yet remains fat must eat at night, may be rendered form: "No case of absence of eating at night while fasting by day is a case of fatness. This is a case of fatness. Therefore, this is not the case of absence of eating at night while fasting by day; i.e. this is a case "night eating". Similarly, the Mīmāṁsaka argument that Devadatta is alive and not yet at home, he must be out, may be rendered in the negative form as: "No case of absence of the man outside home, while he is not also at home, is a case of his being alive. Devadatta is alive. Therefore Devadatta is not absent outside home while he is not home, i.e he is outside home". Arthāpatti is the presumption of one event on the production of negative data.

Prof. D.M.Datta raises an interesting question: "Are we in way constrained to convert a case of Arthāpatti into this form of inference alone?" He expects a student of western philosophy to answer this question, as Vācaspati Miśra did on behalf of the Sāṁkhya, that the instances of Arthāpatti can be put more conveniently in the form of a disjunctive - categorical syllogism. Which would assume the form: a man who is fat eats either by day or by night. This stout man does not eat by day. Therefore he eats at night or Devadatta who is alive is either

at home or out. Devadatta is not at home therefore he is out.

It appears to me that this is more a case where hypothetical and disjunctive inferences are combined than a case of disjunctive-categorical inference as *Prof. Datta* opines. This can be stated in the form, $P \supset (q \vee r)$. This can be further split up in the following two basic inferences.

1. $p \supset q$

   $p$

   $\therefore q$

If Devadatta is fat he must be eating.

He is fat

He must be eating.

2. $p \vee q$

   $\sim p$

   $\therefore q$

Devadatta who is fat must be eating either by day time or by night time.

He does not eat by day time.

∴ He must be eating by night time.

Dr. Datta who attempts an illuminating exposition of the discussion as to why Arthāpatti cannot be classed

as Anumāṇa.[12] He exhibits the petitio principii involved in the attempted reduction to a disjunctive - categorical or acategorical syllogism; for whatever is assumed as major premise 'Devadatta who is alive must be at home or out' or 'Any case of a man who is alive not being at home is a case of his being out' involved the very knowledge which Arthāpatti seeks to establish. Yet another way of establishing the independence of Arthāpatti was explained by Dr. C. Kunhan Raja in a paper before the sixteenth session of the Indian Philosophical Congress; Arthāpatti is not really a process of beginning from the exhaustiveness or exclusiveness of already specified particulars; the process is more like this: it is known that Devadatta is alive; being alive is a general notion which must be realized in some specific way; the initial presumption is that he is alive and at home; when that is negatived, a tension is created by the generality having to find out at once. Some other specific support; relief is given to this tension by providing a specific alternative, namely Devadatta being out. The basic thought procedure this is different from that of inference.

Thus, postulation, as a method of knowledge, has a distinctive character. It cannot be identified with inference or any other means of valid knowledge. It has other distinguishing marks apart from the difference of

attendant apperception that who have noted above. It resembles hypothesis of western logic, but is different from it. As observed by D.M.Datta: 'On all grounds, therefore, we have to admit that Arthāpatti is a distinct method of knowledge; that it cannot be reduced to inference and neither can all inference be reduced to it. But before we conclude, it will be interesting to enquire whether we have any analogue of this process of knowledge in western philosophy. It may be compared to the hypothesis of western logic, in so far as both of them are suppositions that set out to explain given facts. But there are also important points of difference between the two. Like an Arthāpatti, a hypothesis may not be always inspired by the motive of solving a conflict or contradiction. What is more important to note is that 'hypothesis' is used to connote a tentative supposition that awaits verification, and does not, therefore, possess absolute certainty. But an Arthāpatti, though a supposition , is the supposition of the only possible fact and carries with it absolute certainty. It can claim, therefore, the same place as a method of knowledge as is enjoyed by inference, perception, etc.[13]

He concludes with the remark: Kant's transcendental proof can, therefore, be regarded as an instance of Arthāpatti.[14]

Dr. Chatterjee and Dr. Datta have clearly distinguished postulation from hypothesis and deduction:

'It will be found that Arthāpatti (postulation) resembles a hypothesis as understood in western logic. It appears to be like an explanatory hypothesis. But the difference is that it lacks the tentative or provisional character of a hypothesis. What is known by Arthāpatti is not simply hypothetically supposed or entertained, but is believed in as the only possible explanation. As Arthāpatti (postulater) arises out of a demand for explanation. It is different from a syllogistic inference, the object of which is to conclude from given facts, and not to explain given facts. Arthāpatti is a search for grounds, whereas an inference is a search for consequents.[15]

## C. KUMĀRILA'S DEFENCE OF ARTHĀPATTI

According to Kumārila, presumption primarily and indeed exclusively involves the conflict (Virodha or anupapatti) between two well known facts; so that any additional element such as doubt must be out of place within the structure of this source of cognition. In any case, the recognition of doubt as an element in presumption, according to Kumārila, is not, as according to Prabhākara it

is, called for in view of the distinction between presumption and inference. Kumārila's reason for this is that this distinction can be very well explained solely with reference to the conflict involved in presumption. With a view to the explanation of the distinction between presumption and inference, it would, in the view of Kumārila, be sufficient to observe that whereas presumption involves an element of conflict and at the same time is required to resolve the same, inference is free from this element and, consequently, does not have the same function to perform as is incumbent upon presumption to do. Besides, the recognition of doubt as an element in presumption, Kumārila observes further, would adversely affect the performance of the proper function on the part of this source of cognition. For if the knowledge or rather information about a fact, for example, Devadatta's being alive, were doubtful, presumption would certainly be left without a sound basis to stand upon. Kumārila thus frees this source of cognition from the additional burden, the burden of doubt which Prabhākara imposed upon it and seeks to show that, rid of its complexity, presumption can very well maintain its distinctness from inference.

Kumārila quotes the same stock example and on the basis of it tries to prove that the cases of presumption cannot be regarded as the cases of inference. Amongst

the types of presumption, Kumārila picks up 'presumption based upon negation' as a test case, and Bhaṭṭa Umbeka justifies the selection of this type on the ground that it is related to the only example of presumption which has been given by Śabara himself. The example runs as 'the living Caitra is not present in his house'. So, on cognizing the absence of the living Caitra from his house and in order to solve the inconsistency between his living and his absence from his house, one presumes that Caitra would be present somewhere outside his house.

Kumārila advances the following arguments to substantiate his objection to the reducibility of presumption to inference.

**Arthāpatti is different from Anumāna**

In the example of Caitra's presence outside his house, let us see if it can be satisfactorily explained as a case of Anumāna. The given fact in this example is Caitra's absence in the house, that which is to be known from this fact can be stated in two forms, viz. 'Caitra is present in outside space' and 'outside space is one in which Caitra is present'. Accordingly the minor term is either Caitra or outside space. But what is the middle term? The middle term is always the property of the minor term. In the present case absence cannot be the middle term since it

is not a property either of Caitra or outside space. Absence is apprehended in the house. Therefore, it can reasonably be the property of the house alone. Can then the house qualified by the absence be the middle term? No, because the house can never be a property of Caitra or of outside space. What is apprehended is the absence and the house. Caitra and outside space are not apprehended at the time. How can then absence in the house be related to Caitra or outside space? However, imperceptibility can be related to Caitra because when the person goes *to Caitra's house he does not perceive him there.* Can we then make the imperceptibility the middle term and say that Caitra is present in the outside space because he is imperceptible inside the house? No, because imperceptibility is not directly related to the major term, viz. presence outside. Since he may be at home. One must say therefore that fact of his absence from home related with that of his being alive is the mark from which we can infer the fact of his being out. But we find that the relation of these two facts constituting the mark is not possible without the assumption that he is out; for until that alternative comes to the mind life and absence from home appear incompatible. That is to say, the knowledge of the mark presupposes already the knowledge of the fact to be proved, and nothing remains to be proved by the

conference. Hence the attempt to reduce Arthāpatti to inference fails [16] being vitiated by a petitio principii.

A student of western philosophy would like to understand clearly how this argument of the Mīmāṁsakas affects the disjunctive - categorical syllogism to which, it has been found, Arthāpatti can be reduced. It is not easy to understand how the syllogism, 'Devadatta, who is alive, is either at home or is out. Devadatta is not at home. Therefore, he is out', Can come within the purview of the above criticism. For a disjunctive argument cannot be said to have a middle term, unless it is forcibly converted into the categorical type.[17]

Thus imperceptibility and absence in the house both singly are useless for our purpose, because the form is related to minor term, Caitra, but is not related to major term, 'presence outside the house', and the later may be related to the major term but is not related to the minor term.

There is another difficulty also in Anumāna the minor term is apprehended prior to the major term. It seeks to prove that a formally unknown property (dharma) belongs to a well known property possessor (dharmānu). But in the case in question the property-possessor, viz. Caitra or outside space, is not apprehended so, how can anything

be proved by Anumāna? Here Kumārila anticipates the following objection. From the rise in river water rain in higher region is known and this is recognised by all as a case of inference. But according to the above reasoning it cannot be so, since the minor term 'higher regions' is not seen, so that there can be no pakṣadharmata i.e. the middle term 'rise in river-water' cannot be related to the minor term. Kumārila's answer is that the minor term in the said case is not higher region but it is the 'region in earlier the rise in river water is seen' and then the conclusion of the syllogism will be 'this place is one whose higher region have rain' instead of 'the higher regions are such as have rain'. But this answer does not seem satisfactory. It is a mere verbal manipulation. In-spite of the charge in statement the facts are not altered because the rain occurs in the higher region where the rise in river water is seen in this place. And if the charge in statement can make the syllogism flawless, then in the case of Caitra's presence outside too we can make the house minor term instead of Caitra. Anticipating this objection Kumārila says that the knowledge of rain in the higher regions is not a case of inference but of Arthāpatti.[18]

Parthasārathi says that Kumārila's answer is futile. There is no lack of pakṣa dharmata, i.e. the relation

between the minor term 'Caitra' and the *middle term* 'absence in the house'. The relation is obvious when we go to Caitra's house and find that he is absent. It is not a condition of inference that the minor term should always be perceived. Though Caitra is not perceived, yet he is remembered. Thus the syllogism 'Caitra is present outside the house because he is absent in the house and whoever is absent in the house is present outside, like myself' is quite valid and similarly the syllogism which proves the occurrence of rain in the higher regions also is valid. Therefore, either Arthāpatti is not different from Anumāna or if it is different the proper reason should be stated.[19]

Another reason why Arthāpatti cannot be included in Anumāna is that it does not stand in need of knowledge of vyāpti while the latter cannot proceed without it. Vyāpti is a generalization based on a frequent and uncontradicted experience of two things together and in Anumāna vyāpti which constitutes the major premise is known prior to the conclusion. Arthāpatti, on the other hand, is independent of the knowledge of vyāpti. It is true that there is vyāpti between non-existence inside the house and existence outside, but it is not known prior to the presumption of Caitra's existence outside, so that it cannot be the cause of the cognition that Caitra is outside. Even one

who has never experienced the concomitance of non-existence inside the existence outside presumes that a person who is not inside is present outside. Moreover, the proof of the said concomitance is no other than Arthāpatti. From the inexplicability of the fact that Caitra exists and does not exists in the house it is presumed that he exists outside and then we become aware of the relation between non-existence inside and existence outside. The conclusion of a syllogism is the result of applying a general empirical rule to a particular case; but in the case in question Arthāpatti is the means of knowing the general rule. This establishes the distinctness of Arthāpatti from Anumana.[20]

The opponent may object that Arthāpatti is not the only means of knowing the relation between non-existence in one place and existence elsewhere, because it is just possible for one who stands at the door and perceives Caitra in the garden to know the relation. This is true and in this way there may be no need of Arthāpatti for knowing the vyāpti in the case of some person in some instances. However, we cannot do away with Arthāpatti for ever, because though in some cases Arthāpatti is an alternative means of knowing the vyāpti in others it is the only means. For example, the vyāpti between existence in one place and non-existence in all other places cannot be known otherwise than through Arthāpatti.

The opponent says that if non-existence is ascertained not merely by non-apprehension but by non-apprehension in a place where one actually goes, then since it is impossible for one to go to all the places where fire does not exist, the proposition "where there is no fire there is no smoke' cannot be established. The answer is that this fact undermines the position of only those who hold that the vyāpti from which an inference is drawn, must be universal and negative in form. It is, however, been already shown that vyāpti is affirmative in form and that it is established by a uniform and uncontradicted experience of the co-existence of the probans and the probandum and the negation of the probans. Now if, the opponent again objects, the universal relation between smoke and fire can be established through the experience of a limited number of the places where they co-exist, then the relation between existence in one place and non-existence in all other places also can be established through the experience in all other places also can be established through the experience of Caitra's presence in one place and his absence in the adjoining place - we know from the co-existence of smoke and fire in a few places that they co-exist everywhere and likewise we can know from the absence in a few places of Caitra who is known to be present in one particular place that he is absent everywhere else. To this the answer is that the

two cases are not parallel. In the case of the vyāpti between smoke and fire the terms are of a limited extension and are found to be present in their entirety in the few places in which they are observed together. But in the case of vyāpti between existence in one place and non-existence everywhere else, the latter term of the relation is of an unlimited extension, so that it cannot be known in its entirety in a few experiences, though the first term is known in its entirety. The opponent again says that we can know Caitra's non-existence through inference as follow: All places are devoid of Caitra, because they are places other than the one in which he is present, like the place in front. But this inference is inconclusive because it can be counter-balanced by the following inference. All places are those which are not devoid of Caitra because they are other than the one in front, like the place where Caitra is present. Thus Caitra's non-existence everywhere else can be presumed. In the case of Arthāpatti there should be some inexplicability in well ascertained fact, while there is no inexplicability in the perceived of the presence of a person in a place, and this has been admitted by Sucaritamiśra also. The fact becomes inexplicable only when Caitra, who is a finite being, is supposed to be present simultaneously in other places also. But this sort of inexplicability is different from the one which leads Arthāpatti, eg. the inexplicability involved

in Devadattas fatten in spite of his fasting during the day. The contradiction in the present case is not real but hypothetical. To ascertain that a thing can be present in many places at the same time is inconsistent with the fact that it is finite, therefore, we have to deny it. Thus the said instance is not a case of Arthāpatti. It is however a case of Arthāpatti, according to an earlier definition which is found in Vatsyayana's Bhāṣya on Nyāya-Sūtra. By Arthāpatti Vātsyāyana means, "Apprehending from Apposition what is not directly stated in a preposition".[21] From the preposition that a finite thing is present in a particular place at a particular time we apprehend that it is not present in other place at the same time, because the denial of this later fact is opposed to the notion of finite Arthāpatti in this sense is implication rather than presumption.

The Bhaṭṭa Mīmāṁsakās further add that Arthāpatti is different from Anumāna in the sense that the former corroborates the findings of the two independent means of proof, viz. Śabda and Anupalabdhi, which grasp the existence and non-existent of the same object, i.e. Caitra.[22] It simultaneously reveals the existence and the non-existence of the above non-existence, i.e. Caitra Śabda indefinitely speaks his existence. We know that he exists somewhere. But when we know for certain that

he is absent from his house, we also definitely know that he lives somewhere outside his house. Arthāpatti is not an inference because of this distinctive feature. Moreover, a presumption not being conditioned by the knowledge of invariable concomitance is different from an inference.

In the case of inference the relation of invariable concomitance holding between fire and smoke is grasped by a single means of proof. But in the case of presumption the relation of invariable concomitance holding between presence outside a house and absence from a house cannot be grasped by a single means of proof. If it is admitted by the Naiyāyikas that the relation of invariable concomitance is indirectly grasped by means of a hypothetical judgment that this is not possible if such and such condition is not available then we (the Mīmāṁsakās) take no exception to it. The major premise is obtained by means of presumption. The conclusion many be deducted from it by means of syllogistic process. If the subsequent part of the cognitive process is called an inference then the Naiyāyikās may do so as they like.

The relation of invariable concomitance holding between two objects just outside his house may be discovered. But in this way the relation of invariable concomitance holding between an object negated and its negation can never be discovered.

When we see that Caitra is present in his house we conjecture that we cannot account for his stay at home if he is not absent from other places. Thus, we presume his absence from all the places other than his house. We cannot see all the places other than his house and come to know that he is absent from each of them. In this case, generalization, based upon observation, is impossible since the places are innumerable. How do the Mīmāṁsakās arrive at the general (universal) proposition "where there is no fire there is no smoke?" The reply of the Mīmāṁsakās to this question is that the method of agreement contributes much to arrive at the required induction that smoke is the invariable concomitant of fire but exclusive use of the method of difference to arrive at the said induction is not worth trying. If we arrive at the correct generalization repeatedly observing the positive instances then why should we run after negative instances to arrive at the same truth in a round about manner? In the present case, whenever we try to establish the relation of concomitance holding between Caitra and his absence in a general way we realise the real difficulty which asserts it. The absence of Caitra cannot be innumerable. Hence an induction is impossible but a summation of a few cases is merely possible. Hence Caitra's absence cannot be inferred.

Now, a question may arise that Caitra's absence may be definitely known by means of non-perception. 'No' is our reply. The reason is as follows: When we know negation by means of non-perception we know it as located upon a particular well defined locus. But the negation of Caitra belongs to all places excepting his house. Hence it cannot be known by non-perception. The objector may urge that he will roam about from one place to another in order to know the negation of Caitra by means of non-perception. Such a contention is not tenable. Though he may pay a visit to all the different places yet he cannot definitely know the exact locus of the negation of Caitra. He leaves Kauśāmbī for some other places. But a doubt may chase him that as soon as Caitra departs from Kauśāmbī he may return to it. To an ordinary man with a limited power of knowing things the negation of Caitra in all places outside his house cannot be known by means of non-perception but by means of presumption. He may still contend that the object in question may be easily inferred. The argument is as follows: All the other places contain the negation of Caitra because they are other than the place occupied by Caitra like the place in the vicinity of his house. Such an argument is set at naught by a counter-argument. The other places are not distinct from such places as contained in his negation because they are distinct

from the place which is very close to his house like his own house. The small boy of a man is seen only at a particular place. If its negation had not existed in all other places then in small size would have been a puzzle which could not be solved. That is why it should be presumed that his negation exists in all places not occupied by him. Hence, the negation of Caitra under discussion is only ascertained by means of presumption.

As a part of their sustained and continued efforts to preserve the independent and distinct status of Arthāpatti, the Bhaṭṭa Mīmāṁsakās raise an interesting question, 'Are all inferences reducible to Arthāpatti?' Parthasārathi raises this question and discusses it at considerable length. If this line of argument we adopted, is not possible to show that all cases of inference (not only inferences based on purely negative concomitances) are instances of Arthāpatti? Let us consider the case of the inference of fire on the hill. We know that where there is smoke there is fire and we perceive smoke on the hill. Now if there were no fire on the hill the proposition 'where there is smoke there is fire' would be false or our perception of smoke would be false. This is the element of conflict; and the inference of the presence of fire may be taken as a means of resolving this conflict, in which case the inference is Arthāpatti only.

Parthasārathi's answer is that though the cognition of fire on the hill arrived at in the aforesaid manner may be Arthāpatti, yet the cognition that where there is smoke there is fire is not arrived at through Arthāpatti. The Vyāpti between smoke and fire is the result of Anumāna based on the experience of particular instances of smoke and fire. Smoke and fire are seen together in the hearth and this fact does not involve any contradiction if the invariable concomitance between smoke and fire is not recognised. The proposition 'some cases of smoke are cases of fire' is true even though the proposition 'all cases of smoke are cases of fire' be false. Thus there being no contradiction here there is no scope for Arthāpatti. And as some cases at least of Anumāna cannot be brought under Arthāpatti, the two should be admitted to be distinct pramāṇa. The distinction between the two having been recognised there is no harm if the same cognition arises through Anumāna or Arthāpatti. The knowledge of fire on the hill may be arrived at by Anumāna or Arthāpatti, yet this does not mean that Anumāna and Arthāpatti are not distinct from each other. When the knowledge of fire on the hill arises from the recollection of the vyāpti between smoke and fire it is Anumāna, and when it is preceded by the consciousness of inconsistency it is Arthāpatti. Thus the processes aredifferent and none can be reduced to the other.[23]

Parthasārathi's answer, however, is not accepted by the later Bhaṭṭas. It has been shown on the chapter on Anumāna that Parthasārathi's view that the knowledge of vyāpti is based on Anumāna is not accepted by others. As a matter of fact there is no conflict between the knowledge that all cases of smoke are cases of fire and that the hill has smoke. The presence of fire on the hill is inferred from the perception of smoke on it consistently with the knowledge that where there is smoke there is fire. There is no inconsistency here, so that it cannot be case of Arthāpatti. Thus the presence of fire known in this way is not found in the higher regions of the hill its presence in the lower region is presumed to remove the inexplicability of the fact that fire is present though it is not present in the higher regions of the hill.[24]

The Vedāntins hold that even if we arrive at the conclusion of an inference through Arthāpatti, we have to depend for our data on a previous inference. Therefore, inference cannot be reduced to Arthāpatti. Dharmarāja, however, seems to hold that vyatireki inference is reducible to presumption and here, at this point, there is a face-to-face conflict between Dharmarāja and Jayanta in particular and the Vedānta and Nyāya in general.[25]

## REFERENCES


1. Gangānāth Jhā, The Prabhākara School of Pūrva Mīmāṁsā, Indological Publisher, New Delhi, P.70.
2. Bṛhat, P.86.
3. Gangānāth Jhā, The Prabhākara School of Pūrva Mīmāṁsā, Indological Publisher, New Delhi, P.71.
4. Advaita Epistemology with special reference to Iṣṭa-siddhi by P.K.Sundaram, University of Madras, 1968, Pp.164-65.
5. Shāṣṭraradīpikā, Pp.53-54.
6. Prakaraṇa pañcikā, P.275.
7. Vedānta Paribhāsa, P.314.
8. Ciksukha's Tattvapradīpikā, P.109.
9. Vedānta Paribhāsa, II.
10. Ibid, II & V, See also Com. Śikhāmaṇi.
11. Ibid, V.
12. 'Six ways of Knowing', Datta, D.M., Pp.232-37.
13. Ibid, P.238.
14. Ibid, P.239.
15. Śatischandra Chatterjee and Dhirendramohan Datta, 'An Introduction to Indian Philosophy', P.333.
16. Śastra - dīpikā, P.78.
17. Joseph - Introduction to Logic, P.321. He denies that even hypotheticals have really any middle term.
18. Śloka Vārtika of Kumārila (Chowkhamba).
19. Nyāyaratnākara of Pārthasārathi (Chowkhamba) on Śloka-Vārtika of Kumārila, Arthāpatti, 18.

20. Ślokavārtika of Kumārila (Chowkhamba), Arthāpatti, Pp.30-33.

21. Bhāsya on Nyāya Sūtra, 2,2.2.

22. Nyāya Mañjarī, 1-34.

23. Śāstradīpikā of Pārthasārathi (Nirnaya sāgar), P.79.

24. Mānameyodaya of Nārāyaṇa (Adyar), P.125.

25. Vedāntaparibhāṣā, Arthāpatti, P.212.